

Society and Economy: the making, the struggle, and the constitutive ‘worlds’ of realities of everyday economic life. *

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1 Introduction

“Everything now has a price” is probably the rhetorical response to the capitalist tendencies of everything and anything that constitutes the needs and wants of humans. But beyond the rhetoric, this logic tends to be a fundamental proponent of the commodification thesis (Hall, 2023, p 547). Our society is perhaps bemused by the infiltration of market-based consumer culture, even in non-work activities like leisure and recreation (Williams, 2004, p 332). Airbnb is a salient example of this plight: a creation that set out to meet short-stay housing needs and, in part, challenge the hegemony of hotels with its flexible and affordable costs, which are now in parity with those of hotels.

***Note:** This article was written in my first year of PhD. No significant editing was made from what was submitted.

In what Williams and Nadin (2010) referred to as the ‘commercialisation of everyday life:’ the growing reach of expensive real estate, the privileging of STEM (Science, Technology, Engineering, and Mathematics) as a prospective discipline in education, the human capital cultivation in labour, and the more recent large scale commodification of the ecological environment are pointedly self-reinforcing tendencies and critiques of a capitalocentric society, where the accumulation of capital is the central motivation (Asdal *et al.*, 2023; Hall, 2023, p 548).

However, the commodification thesis has come under intense scrutiny in recent times. With vivid theoretical grandstanding and numerous empirical studies, many scholars have refuted the claim of a pervasive market economy and an economic world governed dominantly by capitalism (Berndt and Boeckler, 2023; Asdal *et al.*, 2023; Callon, 2020; Gibson-Graham, 2012; Williams and Nadin, 2010). In their argument, there exists within the same cosmos of economic reality—which only takes a difference in worldview to notice—a wide array of non-commodified economic activities that are in no way inferior (Williams, 2004; Williams, 2002).

Mostly aggregated under an umbrella of “alternative” readings of the economy, different scholars have unpacked the complexity within the economic milieu beyond a capitalocentric framing (White and Williams, 2016, p 325). Harvey referred to it as a “space of hope,” while more radical scholarship portrayed it as a “culture of resistance” (Williams, 2002, p 526) against commodified hegemony. Putting this together with the immanent technological disruption in how value (use or exchange) is produced, accumulated, and mostly exchanged, requires a holistic reading of the economy.

It is against this background that this study seeks to understand everyday economic life from a holistic perspective. However, rather than approach the subject from a distal analysis of the extremes (say, for instance, capitalist or non-capitalist), we examine, under the lens of everyday living, the different struggles that continue to create what is today known

as the economy. The intention is to engage a performative reading of the economy, drawing from the performativity literature to understand the everyday struggle of economic life—what Lee (2006) referred to as “ordinary economies” or the “whole economy,” according to Williams and Nadin (2010).

It is to this effect that this paper is structured thus: first, we take a nosedive into the theoretical and conceptual underpinnings of the economy and everyday life on a spatio-temporal trajectory. Then, we examine the very atom of the economy, which is value. Here, we conceptualise value in terms of its broad distinction (use and exchange) and its relevance in the marketisation or economisation process. And finally, before we conclude, we consider the heart of this argument by looking at the performativity turn of the economics of everyday life.

2 The complex: the economy and society

From the get-go, the framing of the topic at face value could implicitly depict the “Economy” and “Society” as separate entities with clear boundaries, which may leave the reader in a quandary. First of all, the intent is not to read into the duality of society and economics but to elaborate on, if any, the overlaps and inextricability of the two. However, going by the etymology of the co-constitutive conceptualisation of society and the economy, the earliest reverts to the work developed by economic sociology in the late 1970s and early 1980s (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 381). The rallying point of this endeavour is the notion of ‘embeddedness,’ which in turn sets the tone for how economy and society are conceived.

Blurring the boundary between society and economy rather than construe economy as an independent subset of society, economic sociology maintains that the economy is enmeshed in society, and the ensuing human economy is clearly embedded in institutions, both economic and non-economic (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 381). In the 2004 re-

lease of the new economic sociology, Dobbin succinctly captured the critical pivots in the study of embeddedness to be institutions, social networks, cognition, and power relations (Dobbin, 2004). Through a critical lens, economic sociology's method further reveals the complexity at the nexus of society and the economy than a simple borderline conceptualisation.

Before the emergence of economic sociology, qualifying the economy had long been the sole premonition of the competing ideologies between formalism and substantivism. The economy was considered a theoretical project in which its relevance had to be subjected to testable assumptions (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 372). It was also at this dispensation that the bifurcation of 'the economy' and 'the economic' was disentangled. According to them, the formalist position reflects neo-classical economic thought on instrumental rationality, which posits that "individuals are decision-makers and choose between alternative means to maximise their utility (with the minimum inputs or effort)" (p.373). In this school of thought, much emphasis is placed on induced 'economic' behaviours due to instrumental rationality, thereby placing individuals in a position of adequate cognitive capacity to manage choices in the face of limited available resources.

However, while formalist logic asserts individual human action as an essentially economising behaviour, substantivism, on the other hand, places society and the derivative institution as the cornerstones of its theoretical framework. Simply put, the distinguishing feature of substantivism as opposed to formalism is that the emphasis is on the mechanism by which goods circulate and not essentially on the rationality (whether conscious or unconscious) of the individual. It builds purely by relying on both nature and fellow humans for survival, tangled in different institutional processes and arrangements in which society meets its material needs (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 375).

By delving deeper, it becomes clear that the substantivism interpretation of the economy is heavily influenced by Polanyi's renowned book *The Great Transformation* and political

economy ideas. According to Polanyi's economic theory, goods move from one person to another through institutionalised processes that can be divided into three categories: production, distribution, and consumption. Furthermore, he offered three distinct scenarios—reciprocity, trading, and redistribution—that serve as a foundation for the interdependencies between the various segments (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 375). It is worthy of note to point out that the logical compartmentalisation of production, distribution, and consumption as critical pivots upon which society's economic activities are organised is a predilection that substantivism has for the Marxist worldview.

In any case, the circulation of goods within any society involves one form of exchange or another, either through reciprocity, trade, or redistribution. More elaborately, these exchanges include, *inter alia*, primitive bartering, gifts, and trade. And depending on the kind of society (Western or non-Western), cultural influences, and altruism, some kinds of exchange tend to be more prevalent in one society than the other. What is evident, however, is that no society operates purely on just one kind of exchange but combines flexibly different regimes of exchange, albeit in a manner that can be analysed and varied empirically (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009; Williams, 2004, p 376, p 333).

Inadvertently, whether subscribing to neo-classical economics or aligning with political economics, both formalist (individuals as rational economic beings) and substantivist ideology (society as an economic pillar) are critical underpinnings of even contemporary debate on the economy. However, the intriguing omission in both theses, as Çalışkan and Callon (2009) curiously pointed out, is how to definitely determine which elements of society may be regarded as its economy. Thus far, what these two have succeeded in doing is bringing to the fore that which is 'economic', having empirically proven their relevance and established plausibility for economic theories. Hence, the remark by Çalışkan and Callon (2009): "It is impossible to study the economy outside the theories that discuss it." This epistemological tension between 'the economy' and 'the economic' is the revolutionary opening to the economisation project.

3 What does the economisation project contribute?

According to Çalışkan and Callon (2009), “it would be illusory and unrealistic to talk about what the economy is before agreeing on what is considered to be economic” (p. 378). In the event that the study of ‘the economy’ cum ‘the economic’ is faced with the epistemological dilemma of qualifying that which is ‘economic’, a promising space is opened for deconstructing what constitutes ‘the economic’. Prominently, a profound contribution that has heralded this space is the work Çalışkan and Callon (2009) on what they referred to as economisation. A bit of caution is needed here because, all along, there has been an evolutionary trend in the analysis and processes by which entities and practices become economic. Much of the credit goes in part to the pragmatism of John Dewey in the early 20th century, Foucault, and later on, the notable actor-network theory (which will be discussed later on) (Asdal *et al.*, 2023, p 5). In any case, the economisation project by Çalışkan and Callon (2009) became a full-fledged—at least hypothetical—intervention on the need to describe the ‘economic’.

The economisation project is not a utopian idea but remotely started off from the epistemological tension between what the formalist and substantive ideologically believed to be economic, in this case, individual or society. And thus, set to bridge these divergent thoughts, maintaining a pragmatic and open approach to the study of the ‘economic’. In definitive terms, Çalışkan and Callon (2010) denotes economisation as the processes through which behaviours, organisations, institutions, and broadly, objects are constituted as being ‘economic’ (p.2). The key pointer here is the series of ‘processes’ that affirm what qualifies as economic or not.

This was further simplified into three: economic theory; institutional and technical arrangements that improve human agents’ capacity for action and cognition; and the things being valued whose materiality influences the modes of valuation that are possible and

their outcomes (p.2). By implication, apart from the materiality of an entity or object, which makes it economic, being 'economic' is also a function of scientific assumptions and empirical facts, as well as the agency of human beings. Contrary to popular belief, it appears that economists do not have sole power over the qualification of the economic, if it has ever been portrayed as such.

More often than not, as the real economic world portends, a complex network of human agency interaction and even struggles co-produces the economic in different contexts and settings. This, in particular, is the bedrock of actor-network theory and a critical component of the performativity thesis. Without neglecting another critical part in the second key agent of the economisation processes, institutions have been recognised as vital to economic analysis not just by institutional economics but by a wider range of neoclassical and evolutionary thought as well (Çalışkan and Callon, 2009, p 379).

In the same vein, the subject of materiality evokes debates—realistically unending—on how people attribute value to things and behaviours (p.389). According to Pirgmaier (2018), the 'use' relevance of goods and services to people is inextricably linked to the peculiar materiality embodied in them (p.58). It is contingent upon this that the exploration of value, its creation, circulation, and relevance are quintessential to the intricacies of society and the economy.

4 Value, Valuation, and Market

At the core of both social and economic debate is an age-long interrogation of what value is and, of course, how a thing is assigned value. We cannot talk about economics without value. Myrdal (1969, p 15), for instance, affirmed unequivocally that value is 'the starting point for all economic analysis,' the "centerpiece" of the economic paradigm as echoed (Söllner, 1997, p 177). However, the theorisation of value has not been anything near sim-

ple (Lee, 2006, p 141). If there is anything, Pirgmaier (2018) considered it abstractive, difficult, and even more prominent Marxian intervention controversial (p.54). Nonetheless, I consider that a significant breakthrough in the study of how value is produced and reproduced is the unpacking of distinctive use value and exchange value. Reifying this, Smith (1999, p 131) posited that the word value has two meanings, 'value in use' and 'value in exchange'.

Although this contributes less in definitive terms to how value is ascribed to a 'thing', it undeniably advances knowledge on how human beings appropriate resources to satisfy their needs and wants, thus capturing the imperativeness of materiality. But in practice, the use and exchange value pose a dialectical conundrum known as the value paradox. It has been found that things with the greatest use value usually have little or no exchange value, and vice versa. In driving home this point, Smith gave the example of extremely useful water, which scarcely has any exchange value compared to diamond, which, on the contrary, scarcely has any use value. Arguably, this paradox of use-exchange again awakens the exigency to further probe the philosophical yet profoundly practical question: how do we understand value, and how is value valued?

For the purpose of this study, I am not interested in delving into the criticality of its conceptualisation or theorisation, but rather drawing attention to the relevance of value in the study of the economy and the legitimacy of what is considered economic after being varied. Going back to the basics, a fundamental problem that precludes the advent of economics is the need for humans to meet their needs in the face of circumstantial scarcity. And so, when wants and needs converge with preferences and available resources, exchange is imminent. Little wonder Çalışkan and Callon (2009) opined that "things circulate because they are valued, and it is because they are valued that they become goods" (p. 389). This then necessitates a whole chain of value construction, from production through circulation to consumption. Lee (2006) called these circuits and networks of value, which over time have exhibited historical and geographical uniqueness (p. 417).

How these processes have become cohesive and universally organised cannot be explained without exchange. The nature and form of such exchanges are critical to understanding valuation. In fact, the bulk of theorisation on value has been based on exchangeability. Corroborating this, Amin *et al.*, (2002) exclaimed, “The pervasive reach of exchange-value society makes it ever more difficult to imagine and legitimate non-market forms of organisation and provision” (p. 60). To standardize exchanges, money evolved to become a socially acceptable measure of exchangeability (Pirgmaier, 2018, p 59). Not without its critiques, placing money at the heart of value exchangeability undermines or sidelines the credibility of exchanges not involving money.

Nonetheless, if there is any point at which the three conventional theories of value (classical theories of value, marginal utility theory of value, and Marxian value theory) converge, it is in agreeing on money as the standard unit of measure of exchangeability (Pirgmaier, 2018, p 57). This is the reference point for commodities—their capacity to be exchanged (bought and sold at some point) aside from their usefulness to people (Hall, 2023; Pirgmaier, 2018; Shaikh, 1977; Schumpeter, 1954). And when value is in motion, Pirgmaier (2018) calls it capital, describing the aggressive value expansion system as capitalism and insisting that it will be impossible to understand capitalism without first understanding the constellation of value, money, and commodities (p.56).

Basically, capitalist society is known to function purely in a transactional sequence of using money to acquire use value (Harvey, 2006, p 9). Increasingly, as Williams (2002) argued, profit-motivated exchange is predominantly becoming the only kind of monetary exchange that exists (p.533). Putting this in proper details, Sayer (1997) put it this way, “A commodity may be valued by the user for its intrinsic use value, but to the seller, it is unequivocally a means to an end, to the achievement of the external goal of making a profit, and if it is unlikely to make a profit, it will not be offered for sale.” (p.23). While this is true of the long-term proliferation and dominance of capitalism, it underscores the contemporaneity of non-capitalist (whether non-monetary exchanges or non-profit ori-

ented exchanges) practices that are embedded in everyday economic life. Mostly, this has been treated as the fringes of economic activities or irregularities in the market economy, when indeed they are critical components of the economic organisation; barring none, not excluding the Western economy (White and Williams, 2016; Christophers, 2014; Williams, 2004; Williams, 2002).

We cannot discuss the circulation of value and the exchange thereof without an understanding of the market, because if value needs to be produced, circulated through varying forms of exchange before it is consumed, then some form of market needs to exist. By implication, if the knowledge of the economy is contingent on the understanding of being 'economic' which economisation sets out to unpack, then the market and its process of 'being' (which Çalışkan and Callon (2009) referred to as marketisation) are central to the economisation project (Braun, 2016, p 260). From a theoretical point of view, Christophers (2014) contends that the market is a socio-spatial assemblage within which exchange between buyers and sellers takes place while intrinsically involving the establishment of prices. Almost a similar thought to Çalışkan and Callon (2010, p 3) who construed market as a socio-technical arrangement, but in comprehensive detail.

Firstly, agreeing with Christophers, they see the market as an organisation of the whole co-ordinating chain of conceptualisation, production, and circulation of goods where there is a voluntary transfer of property rights, usually in exchange for monetary compensation (Christophers, 2014; Çalışkan and Callon, 2010, p 14, p 3). According to Çalışkan and Callon (2010, p 3), the market exists simply because valuations and the calculations that underlie them manifest as prices. Secondly, for Çalışkan and Callon (2010), the market is governed by certain rules and conventions, constitutes heterogeneously, technicalities, metrological systems, logistical infrastructure, nuances, and narratives, technical and scientific knowledge, and more importantly, human cognitive (calculative) competencies (p.3). Above all, it is a space of struggles and confrontations triangulated around realities, practices, and ideals.

Practically, the conversion of value into a number, particularly a monetary one, is inherently a difficult process. From the social construction lens, price is a marker of competing struggles (of interests and compromises), and on the technical side, the struggle within the value distribution chain (Maurer, 2006). At the end, the latter is in a good position to impose prices but would not stop there until they allied with similar interests and pushed for the universalisation of their mode of valuation (Guyer, 2004). Suffice to say that in perpetuating this, the market economy ensues, which Polanyi conceives as an act of statecraft, a political creation that could only set its imprint by the enormity of the external supports it gets (Palumbo, 2020, p 3). Arbitrarily, it is purported to be self-regulating, but, practically, the mechanism requires that all resources attributable to production, consumption, and distribution be “commoditised”, that is, carry a price tag (Palumbo, 2020, p 2).

Recall Çalışkan and Callon (2009, p 380), arguing that the centrepiece of the formalist thesis lies “a genuine anthropological project that posits the human being as a rational maximiser.” Going by this analogy, if the market processes are left entirely (misguided) to the control of the calculating agency, they could exploit market asymmetries to control valuations and determine prices, which ultimately become the “market truth”—a typical capitalist system (Çalışkan and Callon, 2010, p 13). This prism of market truth is what Foucault examined deeply in the analysis of market turns in liberal and neo-liberal societies and argued that “market becomes its own truth where morals or normativities of exchange were replaced with market truth (Asdal *et al.*, 2023; Foucault, 2008, p 5,). In a rejoinder by Polanyi, treating everything as a commodity is utopian and bound to fail; otherwise, if fully achieved, it could lead to the “demolition of society” (Hall, 2023; Polanyi, 2001, p 547, 76). Putting this in perspective, Ghezzi and Mingione (2019) explained that the market (calculating agency in its formalist state of rational maximiser) “can impose its own exploitative and ‘artificial’ rules with inevitable distortions in society” (p.97).

Whether these concerns have materialised is an inquiry for the purveyors of the “commodification of everyday life” thesis and a reflection on the propagation of the prolifer-

ation of market economy. The main argument of the commodification literature is that commodities and the capitalistic market economy have taken the world by storm rather than being one form of the economy (Hall, 2023; Williams, 2004, p 548, 330). Looking at Wood's claim that "virtually everything in capitalist society is a commodity produced for the market" and Watt's comment that "virtually everything in modern society is a commodity" (Hall, 2023, p 547), one would imagine a world deeply entrenched in capital and solely commodity-based economy. If true, Polanyi's prediction of the "demolition of the society" ought to be underway at this point. If not, the validity of the "commodification of everything" argument begs the question: could it be a conjecture or an exaggeration? The commodification thesis was beginning to gain traction until the performativity scholarship took off.

5 The Performativity turn of the economics of everyday life

On a quest to understand the 'real' world and move beyond torrid canons of epistemological and ontological reading of the economy, change is imminent. Like Gibson-Graham (2012) acknowledged, it used to be "understanding the world in order to change it," but now, a change in orientation to just understanding enough of what "reality" entails, sparked the performativity crusade. In Callon (2020, p 53) defence, it is multiplying conceivable worlds through collective experimentation and performance. This was a radical turn that was already taking place in the field of economics, but was greatly accelerated by heterodox economics and related disciplines. Theorists in the post-structuralist, post-colonial, and post-developmental era realised that certain narratives have been disproportionately elevated beyond reach when it comes to reading the economy (Williams and Nadin, 2010; Gibson-Graham, 2006; "Alternative Economic Spaces, Sage, London" 2003, p 55,). Others, meanwhile, were dismissed as insignificant or relegated to the fringes of the economic frontier (Williams, 2004; Williams, 2002).

And so, building on the notable actor network theory and the socio-technical approach initially developed by Callon and other contributions or improvements like the socio-technical ‘agencement’ by Deleuze, Guattari, *et al.*, (1980), the proponent of this theory conceives the economy as a space of multiple realities and performances, and to indeed understand everyday economic life in its organic form, a performativity approach is the key. Essentially, as Callon (2020, p 17) described it, performativity “deploys all the materialities comprising the sociotechnical agencement that constitute the world, leaves open the possibility of events that might refute, or even happen independently of, what humans believe or think.” Simply put, it is observing all the components (materiality, technicalities, assemblages, human, and non-human agents) of the economy and society from an unpresumptuous worldview, even if they don’t align with theoretical normativities and logic. This defies, arbitrarily, even the end-to-end bifurcation of observables and their inherent alternative possibilities, or, evident in most cases, the ‘othering’ of other economic options.

So, this is not a capitalist/non-capitalist, market/non-market, good/bad, formal/informal, monetary/non-monetary dichotomy, but a constellation of all observables within the economic complex that contribute to social life. Gibson-Graham (2012, p 34) referred to this economic landscape as a proliferative space of difference, while Williams and Nadin (2010, p 57) portrayed it as a “multiplex”—a concoction of variants and diversity. It implies that, that bioeconomy is now portrayed as a ‘good’ economy, does not underscore or erase the presence and role of fossil-fueled economic practices; clean or not, energy generated from any form within the economic complex contributes to the economy (Asdal *et al.*, 2023, p 17). Similarly, for morality, the performative approach will not discriminate—kidnapping, fraud, theft, corruption, etc., are embedded within the economy when analysed through the prism of performance. More importantly, while it is okay to appreciate the contribution of scholarship to alternative economies, it will be misguided to equate it to performativity, although it could be one of the manifestations. If the objective

of performativity is to account for all the elements that constitute the economy, a shift to alternative economies assumes a benchmark; the question that then begs an answer is, alternative to what?

This here leads to the argument of Gibson-Graham (2006b [1996], p 7) probing the benchmarking of other forms of economy from the standpoint of capitalism: “as being fundamentally with capitalism; or as substandard imitations; or as being opposite or complementary.” On the contrary, as Gibson-Graham (2012, p 42) will later assert, capitalism itself is a site of difference that can be performatively examined or repressed through research. And fundamentally, this is what performativity is about, opening up possible ‘worlds’ within a system. And any attempt to forcibly advance a narrative or assert dominance will distort the representation of reality. This is the illusory pitfall that adherents of the commodification thesis continue to fall into in their reporting of the pervasiveness of market hegemony. In no order, Carruthers and Babb (2000), Rifkin (2000), De Soto (2001), Fulcher (2004), and Castree *et al.*, (2004, p 4), and a host of others all agree that the market, or capitalism, is a pervasive force in our everyday lives and largely dominates the modern economy.

Obviously, from a performative point of view, there are pockets of evidence of capitalist expansion. For instance, cloaked in a neo-liberal economic development agenda, Williams (2004, p 331) reported the gradual replacement of the state and community sector by the market. Also, Tickell (2001) raised the subject of the privatisation of the public sphere (p.334) as state control is transferred to the market. Similarly, Hall (2023) and Williams (2004, p 545, p 332) hinted at the increasing market-based consumer culture. Airbnb cost is catching up, if not overtaking, the cost of a hotel. This is not coincidental; Polanyi pointed out this transformation from non-market to market society as merely a shift in the balance of economic activity, albeit not overstating the reach of the market (Williams, 2004, p 332). Pragmatically, the impressionable ‘commodification of everything’ has been criticized as

having underwhelming empirical support (Hall, 2023; Williams, 2002). On the contrary, numerous pieces of evidence exist to substantiate the prevalence of seemingly 'peripheral' economic activities (Gibson-Graham, 2012; Williams, 2004; Williams, 2002, p 36, p 334, p 532). Advancing this discourse, Williams and Nadin (2010, p 56) through their 'whole economy' approach, unravels the plurality of economic practices through a continuum from market-oriented to non-market and purely monetised to non-market. In a similar approach, Gibson-Graham (2006) unpacked it in two folds: first into market, alternative, and non-market, and secondly, a disaggregation of labour into waged, alternatively paid, and unpaid labour. Another significant contribution to this uncoupling of the economy is the further unbundling of monetized exchange into profit-motivated and not-for-profit (Williams and Nadin, 2010, p 57). The former mirrors commodification, while the latter encompasses various practices embedded in community work and the social economy (p.63).

Moreover, the social economy, also known as the 'third sector,' is massive, work is noncommodified, and market transactions are not profit-oriented (Williams, 2004, p 332). Unsurprisingly, the advancement in technology and innovation has further radicalised market dynamics. There are digital marketplaces where exchanges are made based more on their use value than their exchange value. In recent times, people are earning from impressions and engagements (Twitter turned X, Facebook, Instagram, etc., are popular examples). Additionally, learning new skills has never been easier. Platforms like YouTube offer skill tutorials for free, contributed by skilled individuals who get compensated through a viewership-based monetisation model. The supplier has no control over price; the valuation system relies on technology and the value derived from consumption. On the other hand, there are paid platforms that rely on a subscription model before these skills can be accessed. These diverse possibilities exemplify the complexity of the economic landscape. In view of these overwhelming economic possibilities—metaphorical or hyperbolized—it would be grossly naive to approach the economy through the prism of commodification.

In fact, depicting the gamut of other not-for-profit exchanges and transactions as ‘alternatives’ undermines their significance and understates their constitutive role in the economy.

6 Conclusion

In conclusion, the intricate interplay between society and the economy has been a subject of intense scholarly debate and analysis. The notion of the economy being a distinct entity from society has been challenged by economic sociology, which asserts that the economy is enmeshed within society and operates within institutional and social frameworks. The formalist and substantivist ideologies further delineate differing viewpoints on the role of individual rationality versus societal institutions in shaping economic activities. The economisation project, as proposed by Çalışkan and Callon, seeks to bridge these perspectives and understand what is considered economic by focusing on economic theory, institutional arrangements, and the materiality of valuation.

Value, a central concept in economic analysis, through a series of theorisation has been explicated into use value and exchange value. The market, which gradually evolved as a space of exchange and valuation, is a critical component of the economic landscape. However, the reductivism of value to exchange undergirds the market economy and commodification thesis. The commodification thesis, which asserts the pervasive influence of market-based consumer culture and capitalism, has been a focal point of discussion. However, recent performativity scholarship has taken a different perspective, emphasizing the need to understand the economy through a lens that embraces a multitude of economic realities, practices, and ideals.

Performativity offers a new perspective on the economics of everyday life by acknowledging the coexistence of various economic realities and practices. It encourages scholars to examine the economy without preconceived biases, allowing for a deeper understanding

of the diverse ways in which economic activities are performed and constructed. This approach challenges the binary categorizations of capitalist versus non-capitalist, market versus non-market, and encourages a holistic view of economic interactions.

In essence, the conclusion drawn from this exploration is that the economy is a multi-faceted construct that cannot be solely defined by any single theoretical framework or dominant economic ideology. The performativity turn urges researchers to adopt a more inclusive approach to understanding economic phenomena, recognizing the coexistence of different economic forms and practices within society. This shift in perspective offers a richer and more nuanced understanding of the complex relationship between society and the economy, contributing to a more comprehensive analysis of the dynamics that shape our everyday economic lives.

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